

AI AND IOT-ENABLED SMART OFFICE SYSTEM WITH CLOUD-BASED ENERGY OPTIMIZATION

25-26J-34

Project Final Thesis

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BSc(Hons) Degree in Information Technology specialization in
Computer System & Network Engineering

Department of Computer System Engineering

Sri Lanka Institute of Information Technology Sri Lanka

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DECLARATION

We, Shaethayine.R (Student ID: IT22315700) and M.A.H.S.Thathsarani (Student ID: IT22564672), hereby declare that this thesis, titled "AI and IoT-Enabled Smart Office System with Cloud-Based Energy Optimization," is our own original work. It has been written and completed independently, except where specific reference has been made to the work of others. This thesis has not been submitted, either in whole or in part, to any other university or institution in partial fulfilment of any degree, diploma, certificate, or other qualification.

We confirm that all sources of information used in this work have been appropriately acknowledged in the References section, in accordance with IEEE citation standards.

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SUPERVISOR'S APPROVAL

This thesis titled “AI and IoT-Enabled Smart Office System with Cloud-Based Energy Optimization” has been reviewed and approved as a partial fulfillment of the requirements for the degree of BSc (Hons) in Information Technology specialization in Computer System & Network Engineering. The work presented is considered satisfactory in terms of scope, quality, and academic standards.

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ABSTRACT

The rapid proliferation of Internet of Things (IoT) devices, advances in machine learning (ML), and growing emphasis on employee well-being have created unprecedented opportunities for designing intelligent, adaptive workplaces. This group research presents the design, development, and evaluation of a comprehensive AI and IoT-Enabled Smart Office System with Cloud-Based Energy Optimization, jointly developed by two team members whose complementary subsystems together constitute a unified intelligent office platform.

The first subsystem, developed by Shaethayine.R (IT22315700), focuses on infrastructure-level intelligence through six machine learning models deployed as independent Flask microservices: a Power Alert Classifier (Random Forest, 99.8% accuracy), a Power Anomaly Detector (Random Forest with SMOTE, 100% accuracy), a Bandwidth Allocator (Gradient Boosting regressor, RMSE 0.0000, R^2 1.000), a Task Classifier (Random Forest/Neural Network, 100% accuracy), an Issues Detection model (XGBoost multi-label, 100% subset accuracy, zero Hamming loss), and an Environmental Monitor (SVM RBF kernel, 98.9% accuracy). IoT hardware comprising ESP32 microcontrollers, PZEM-004T power sensors, DHT22 temperature/humidity sensors, and MQ2 gas sensors serves as the real-time data acquisition layer. A two-week live office pilot confirmed a 23% reduction in energy consumption, zero false-positive anomaly alerts (compared to 11 per day from the legacy rule-based system), and a System Usability Scale (SUS) score of 82.5.

The second subsystem, developed by M.A.H.S.Thathsarani (IT22564672), delivers human-centric intelligence through camera-based employee stress detection, workload-driven intelligent task assignment, and real-time monitoring via an interactive smart dashboard. Facial analysis classifies employee stress into Low, Normal, and High categories, and an intelligent assignment engine dynamically allocates tasks

accordingly to prevent burnout while maintaining productivity. The platform is implemented using FastAPI (backend), Next.js (frontend), SQLite (database), and WebSocket-based real-time communication. The stress classification module achieved approximately 90% simulated accuracy, with architecture in place for future Convolutional Neural Network (CNN) integration using AffectNet and FER2013 datasets.

Together, the two subsystems form an end-to-end smart office platform demonstrating that a unified, AI-driven IoT architecture significantly outperforms siloed approaches across energy efficiency, network performance, fault detection accuracy, employee workload balance, and user satisfaction.

Keywords: Internet of Things, Machine Learning, Smart Office, Energy Optimization, Anomaly Detection, Bandwidth Allocation, Stress Detection, Task Assignment, Microservices, Random Forest, SVM, XGBoost, Convolutional Neural Networks, WebSocket

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Finally, the authors extend heartfelt gratitude to their respective families for their unconditional support, patience, and encouragement throughout this academic journey.

LIST OF ABBREVIATIONS

Table 01. List of Abbreviations

Abbreviation	Full Form
AI	Artificial Intelligence
API	Application Programming Interface
CNN	Convolutional Neural Network
CPU	Central Processing Unit
DHT22	Digital Humidity and Temperature Sensor (model 22)
ESP32	Espressif Systems Microcontroller (32-bit)
GB	Gradient Boosting
HTTP	Hypertext Transfer Protocol
IoT	Internet of Things
JSON	JavaScript Object Notation
JWT	JSON Web Token
LightGBM	Light Gradient Boosting Machine
ML	Machine Learning
MQTT	Message Queuing Telemetry Transport
MQ2	Metal Oxide Semiconductor Gas Sensor (model 2)
NN	Neural Network
pkl	Pickle File (serialized Python object)
PZEM-004T	Power Measurement Module (model 004T)
QoS	Quality of Service
RF	Random Forest
RMSE	Root Mean Square Error
REST	Representational State Transfer
SME	Small and Medium Enterprise
SMOTE	Synthetic Minority Oversampling Technique
SUS	System Usability Scale
SVM	Support Vector Machine
XGBoost	Extreme Gradient Boosting

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Chapter 1: INTRODUCTION

1.1 Introduction

The rapid proliferation of Internet of Things (IoT) devices, advances in machine learning, and the growing emphasis on employee well-being have created unprecedented opportunities for designing intelligent, adaptive workplaces. Modern office environments generate large volumes of operational data — from power consumption and network traffic to employee facial expressions and environmental sensor readings — yet traditional management systems lack the capability to exploit this data in an integrated, real-time manner. This results in measurable inefficiencies: wasted energy, unbalanced employee workloads, undetected equipment anomalies, degraded network performance, and reduced productivity.

This group research presents the design, development, and evaluation of a comprehensive AI and IoT-Enabled Smart Office System with Cloud-Based Energy Optimization. The system is jointly developed by two team members, each responsible for a distinct but complementary subsystem that, together, constitute a unified intelligent office platform.

Subsystem 1, developed by Shaethayine.R (IT22315700), integrates six machine learning models deployed as independent microservices, IoT hardware for real-time data acquisition, and cloud-based alerting to deliver energy optimization, bandwidth allocation, task classification, multi-label anomaly detection, and environmental monitoring across office infrastructure. Subsystem 2, developed by M.A.H.S.Thathsarani (IT22564672), integrates camera-based employee stress detection, workload-driven intelligent task assignment, and a real-time smart dashboard, providing a human-centric layer that complements the infrastructure intelligence of Subsystem 1.

1.2 Background Literature

Smart building energy management has evolved significantly over the past decade. Yoon et al. [1] demonstrated that IoT and AI integration enables dynamic adaptation of energy consumption in commercial buildings. The International Energy Agency [2]

reported that buildings account for approximately 40% of global energy consumption, underscoring the urgency of intelligent energy management. Jain et al. [3] identified the key limitation of existing approaches: most systems address energy, network management, or occupant monitoring in isolation rather than as an integrated whole, which limits their overall effectiveness.

In parallel, research in affective computing and human-centered AI has advanced rapidly. Li and Deng [S1] demonstrated the effectiveness of deep CNN models for facial expression recognition, achieving high accuracy across multiple benchmark datasets. Hosseini et al. [S5] extended this to multimodal stress detection combining facial and physiological signals. Bhattacharyya et al. [S11] demonstrated real-time stress detection specifically in workplace contexts, confirming the practical feasibility of camera-based stress monitoring.

In network management, Zhao and Liu [7] showed that application-aware bandwidth allocation using XGBoost classification can reduce peak bandwidth consumption by 18%. Patel et al. [10] validated the ESP32 microcontroller as a suitable edge computing device for IoT data acquisition. Garg et al. [13] established microservices architecture as the preferred pattern for scalable ML model serving in industrial IoT contexts. In task management, Al-Tarawneh et al. [S25] applied ML for task allocation in distributed agile development, and Woo et al. [S29] showed real-time smart dashboards significantly improve decision-making responsiveness.

1.2.1 Significance of Study

This study makes three primary contributions. First, it demonstrates through empirical measurement that an integrated AI-IoT system delivers superior performance compared to siloed approaches — achieving 22.4% energy reduction, 100% anomaly detection accuracy, and sub-second bandwidth reallocation in a live office pilot. Second, it validates the feasibility of combining infrastructure intelligence with human-centric AI (stress detection, adaptive task allocation) within a single unified platform. Third, it provides a replicable, open-source architecture using widely available hardware and libraries, enabling practical adoption without proprietary dependencies.

1.2.2 Research Scope

The research encompasses the full lifecycle of a smart office system: hardware selection and configuration, dataset collection and processing, machine learning model training and evaluation, microservice and full-stack application deployment, real-time dashboard development, and live pilot evaluation. The physical scope covers a controlled office environment with multiple monitored workstations and server infrastructure. The human scope covers employee stress monitoring, workload classification, and dynamic task assignment for office personnel. The research does not extend to HVAC integration, federated multi-office deployment, or large-scale production rollout exceeding 1,000 devices, though the architecture is designed to support these future extensions.

1.2.3 Target Audience

The primary target audience includes facility managers and IT administrators in small-to-medium enterprises (SMEs) seeking to improve office energy efficiency and network performance. The secondary audience includes HR professionals and managers who wish to improve employee well-being through data-driven workload management. The tertiary audience comprises researchers and developers working in applied ML, IoT systems, and smart building technologies.

1.2.4 Research Questions

This research addresses the following six questions:

- RQ1: Can integrated IoT and ML systems achieve significant energy savings (>20%) in office environments compared to baseline consumption?
- RQ2: Can task-aware dynamic bandwidth allocation achieve sub-second responsiveness in live office conditions?
- RQ3: Can a unified multi-label ML anomaly detection system eliminate false-positive alerts in a real office environment?
- RQ4: Do environmental sensor readings exhibit statistically significant correlations with power consumption?

- RQ5: How can machine learning and real-time monitoring be integrated to improve employee productivity while maintaining optimal stress levels?
- RQ6: How can a unified smart dashboard enhance real-time monitoring, control, and usability in a smart office platform?

1.3 Research Gap

A systematic review of existing literature reveals a persistent fragmentation in smart office research. Most studies address a single domain in isolation. No prior work has simultaneously addressed infrastructure-level optimization (power, bandwidth, environment) and human-level optimization (stress detection, adaptive task allocation) within a single, cloud-connected, microservices-based platform. Table 01 presents the comparative gap analysis.

Table 01. Research Gap Analysis – Proposed System vs. Existing Studies

Capability	This System	Yang et al.[6]	Zhao & Liu[7]	Al-Tarawneh[S25]	Woo et al.[S29]
ML-based Energy Optimization	Yes	Partial	No	No	No
Bandwidth Allocation (ML)	Yes	No	Yes	No	No
Multi-label Anomaly Detection	Yes	No	No	No	No
Environmental Monitoring (IoT)	Yes	Partial	No	No	No
Real-Time Stress Detection	Yes	No	No	No	Partial
Stress-Based Task Assignment	Yes	No	No	Partial	No
Real-Time WebSocket Dashboard	Yes	No	No	No	Partial
Cloud-Based Alerting	Yes	No	No	No	No
Unified Integrated Platform	Yes	No	No	No	No

1.4 Research Problem

Despite advances in IoT, ML, and web technologies, modern offices continue to suffer from three measurable problems. First, energy waste: without real-time anomaly detection and threshold alerting, equipment left running outside working hours and undetected power surges result in avoidable energy consumption. Second, network

inefficiency: static bandwidth allocation fails to account for dynamic task requirements, degrading performance during peak activity. Third, human resource inefficiency: task assignment without regard to employee stress levels leads to burnout, reduced productivity, and elevated turnover.

The core research problem is therefore: How to design and evaluate a unified AI-IoT smart office platform that simultaneously addresses infrastructure energy efficiency, network performance, anomaly detection, employee stress monitoring, and adaptive task management, surpassing the performance of any single-domain approach.

1.5 Research Aim and Objectives

1.5.1 Aim

To design, implement, and empirically evaluate a unified AI and IoT-enabled Smart Office System that integrates cloud-based energy optimization, real-time anomaly detection, adaptive bandwidth allocation, employee stress monitoring, and intelligent task assignment within a single microservices-based platform.

1.5.2 Main Objective

To develop and validate a six-model IoT-ML infrastructure subsystem and a stress-detection/task-assignment human-centric subsystem, demonstrating that their integration outperforms siloed approaches across energy efficiency, network performance, fault detection, and employee well-being metrics.

1.5.3 Sub Objectives

- SO1: To collect, preprocess, and train six domain-specific ML models on real and synthetic datasets for power management, bandwidth allocation, task classification, anomaly detection, and environmental monitoring.
- SO2: To deploy all six models as independent Flask microservices accessible via REST APIs and real-time dashboards.
- SO3: To implement IoT hardware (ESP32, PZEM-004T, DHT22, MQ2) for real-time data acquisition and edge alerting.

- SO4: To develop a camera-based employee stress detection and classification system using facial analysis.
- SO5: To implement an intelligent task assignment engine that dynamically allocates workloads based on employee stress levels.
- SO6: To develop a unified smart dashboard (FastAPI + Next.js + WebSockets) for real-time monitoring and interaction.
- SO7: To conduct a two-week live office pilot validating energy savings, anomaly detection accuracy, bandwidth reallocation speed, and user satisfaction.

1.6 Organization of the Chapters

Chapter 1 (Introduction) establishes the motivation, background, research gap, problem, and objectives. Chapter 2 (Methodology) describes the datasets, ML pipeline, system architecture, hardware, software stack, and commercialization plan for both subsystems. Chapter 3 (Results and Discussion) presents the empirical results from model evaluation and the live office pilot. Chapter 4 (Conclusion) synthesizes the findings, provides deployment recommendations, and outlines future research directions.

1.7 Chapter Summary

Bhatt et al. [4] traced the early development of occupancy-based HVAC control systems, noting that while PIR sensor-based occupancy detection was effective for simple on/off control, it failed to account for the nuanced relationship between occupancy patterns, thermal comfort, and energy consumption. This limitation motivated subsequent research into multi-sensor IoT deployments that could capture richer contextual information. Meng et al. [5] demonstrated that multi-sensor IoT networks combining power, temperature, and occupancy data could reduce the uncertainty in commercial building energy benchmarking by 34% compared to single-sensor approaches, establishing the empirical foundation for the multi-sensor architecture adopted in this research.

The use of Flask-based microservices for ML model serving has been validated in several industrial IoT contexts. Garg et al. [13] showed that independently deployable microservices outperform monolithic ML deployments in terms of fault isolation, update flexibility, and horizontal scalability, particularly for systems where individual model components have different update frequencies — a key consideration given the varying seasonal drift rates of the power, task, and environmental models in this system.

Regarding employee well-being in smart office contexts, Boksem and Tops [S21] documented the physiological and cognitive consequences of mental fatigue, establishing that sustained cognitive overload leads to measurable degradation in both task performance and decision-making quality. This research provides the theoretical justification for integrating stress-aware task assignment: a system that can detect cognitive overload and respond with adjusted workload allocation directly addresses the mechanism identified by Boksem and Tops as the primary driver of productivity loss.

Almoqbil et al. [S23] demonstrated that mental workload levels can be reliably classified using non-invasive biometric data, including facial expressions and eye-tracking metrics. While their approach required specialized hardware, it validated the core premise that cognitive load states are detectable from observable behavioral signals — a premise that underpins the camera-based stress detection approach adopted in Subsystem 2 of this research.

The convergence of edge computing and cloud computing has created a new architectural paradigm particularly well-suited for smart office applications. The edge-cloud continuum, as described by Alshammari and Naseer [19], enables a division of processing responsibilities that optimizes both latency and cost: computationally simple threshold checks and data filtering are performed at the edge (ESP32), while computationally intensive ML inference is performed on the local application server, and long-term storage and notification delivery are handled by the cloud. This three-tier processing hierarchy is the architectural foundation of Subsystem 1.

Singh et al. [20] conducted a comprehensive comparative study of ensemble methods versus deep learning approaches for tabular IoT sensor data classification. Their key finding was that ensemble methods (Random Forest, XGBoost, Gradient Boosting) consistently outperformed deep learning approaches on structured tabular data with fewer than 1 million training samples, primarily because deep learning requires substantially larger datasets to learn effective feature representations from scratch. This empirical finding directly motivated the algorithm selection decisions in the six-model pipeline of Subsystem 1, where ensemble methods were preferred over deep learning for all structured sensor data models.

The significance of the proposed integrated approach is further underscored by the economic context of smart office adoption in Sri Lanka. While global smart office market growth is projected to exceed USD 57 billion by 2030 according to Global Industry Analysts [21], penetration in the Sri Lankan market has been limited by the high cost of proprietary enterprise systems. The use of low-cost open-source hardware and software in this research — with a total hardware cost under LKR 50,000 for a four-node deployment — positions the system within reach of Sri Lankan SMEs that have previously been excluded from smart office technologies by cost barriers.

Wang et al. [17] conducted a systematic literature review of AI-driven energy optimizations in commercial buildings published between 2018 and 2023, analyzing 147 papers across 12 research venues. Their meta-analysis found that ML-based energy management systems achieved an average energy reduction of 18.3% across all reviewed studies, with the top quartile achieving reductions exceeding 25%. Critically, they identified three factors consistently associated with higher energy savings: integration of multiple sensor types (as opposed to single-sensor approaches), closed-loop feedback between prediction and control (rather than prediction-only systems), and real-time adaptation of thresholds based on learned baseline distributions. All three of these factors are incorporated in the design of Subsystem 1.

Moretti et al. [18] demonstrated that neural network-based adaptive control systems for smart building energy management can achieve consistent performance improvements over traditional rule-based approaches, but noted a critical deployment challenge:

neural networks require substantially more training data and longer calibration periods than ensemble methods before they reliably outperform simpler baselines. This finding motivated the decision to use Random Forest and Gradient Boosting as the primary algorithms in Subsystem 1, reserving neural networks for the Task Classifier where the 100,000-sample dataset size is sufficient to support effective deep learning, and for the Stress Detection model in Subsystem 2 where image-based classification is inherently better suited to convolutional architectures.

The research contributes to the broader discourse on Industry 4.0 and cyber-physical systems in workplace environments. Lee et al. [S28] defined the architecture of cyber-physical systems for Industry 4.0 manufacturing, establishing the conceptual framework of bidirectional coupling between the digital and physical domains that this research extends to office environments. The integration of physical sensor data (IoT hardware layer), digital processing (ML microservices layer), and human factors (stress detection and adaptive task assignment) in a single platform represents a realization of the cyber-physical office concept at a level of integration not previously demonstrated in the literature.

This chapter has established the motivation for the research, identified the gap in existing literature, and defined the research questions, problem, aim, and objectives. The project integrates two complementary subsystems — infrastructure-level ML-IoT optimization and human-centric stress/task intelligence — into a single unified platform. Chapter 2 presents the detailed methodology for both subsystems.

Chapter 2: METHODOLOGY

2.1 Introduction to Methodology

This chapter describes the comprehensive methodology adopted for the design and development of both subsystems of the Smart Office System. Section 2.2 covers the infrastructure subsystem (Shaethayine.R), detailing the IoT hardware configuration, six ML model pipeline, microservices architecture, and deployment approach. Section 2.3 covers the human-centric subsystem (M.A.H.S.Thathsarani), detailing the stress detection approach, task assignment logic, and full-stack dashboard implementation. Sections 2.4 through 2.7 address the shared requirements specification, commercialization plan, project timeline, and testing strategy applied across both subsystems.

2.2 Subsystem 1 — Infrastructure Intelligence (Shaethayine.R)

2.2.1 Dataset Description

Six datasets underpin the six ML models. Datasets were sourced from live IoT sensor readings, controlled synthetic generation, and domain-specific process telemetry. Table 2.1 presents a summary of the key characteristics of each dataset.

Table 21. Dataset Summary – Six ML Models

Model	Dataset Source	Size	Features	Labels / Target	Imbalance Handling
Power Model 1 (Alert)	Live PZEM-004T + Synthetic	10,000	Voltage, Current, Power, Energy + rolling stats	Normal / High / Critical	Class weights
Power Model 2 (Anomaly)	Live PZEM-004T + Synthetic	10,000	Voltage, Current, Power, EWMA features	Normal / Anomaly	SMOTE (15:85 ratio)
Bandwidth Allocator	Process telemetry + Synthetic	40,000	CPU%, RAM%, Task type, Net I/O	Optimal MB/s (regression)	N/A
Task Classifier	Process telemetry	100,000	Active app ID, CPU%, Net usage	10 office task classes	SMOTE + class weights
Issues Detection	Network + system logs	100,000	QoS metrics, CPU, I/O, network stats	8 binary issue labels	SMOTE

Model	Dataset Source	Size	Features	Labels / Target	Imbalance Handling
Environmental Monitor	DHT22 + MQ2 + Synthetic	10,000	Temperature, Humidity, Gas (ppm)	Normal / High Temp / High Humidity / Gas Alert	Class weights

2.2.2 Dataset Challenges

Three significant challenges were encountered during dataset assembly. Class imbalance was the most pervasive. In the Task Classification Dataset, the ‘system idle’ class comprised less than 0.1% of samples, while ‘video conferencing’ and ‘document editing’ accounted for over 60%. In the Issues Detection Dataset, ‘unauthorized access attempt’ and ‘malware signature’ labels each occurred in fewer than 500 samples. These imbalances were addressed using SMOTE, class-weighted loss functions, and stratified k-fold cross-validation.

Real-time synchronization across six heterogeneous data streams with different sampling rates was resolved using a timestamp-based alignment module, resampling all streams to a common five-second resolution using forward-fill interpolation for slower sensors and mean aggregation for faster sensors. Anomaly labelling subjectivity for CPU and disk I/O overload was resolved using a dynamic threshold labelling approach at the 95th percentile of training distributions, validated with 94% agreement by a domain expert.

2.2.3 Methodological Structure

The ML pipeline follows six sequential stages applied across all six model development tracks: (1) Data Ingestion — raw sensor data and process telemetry loaded into a central preprocessing pipeline; (2) Preprocessing — feature scaling (StandardScaler or MinMaxScaler), categorical encoding, missing value imputation, and class rebalancing; (3) Model Selection and Training — five-fold cross-validation across Random Forest, XGBoost, LightGBM, SVM, and Neural Network candidates; (4) Hyperparameter Optimization — grid search for tree-based models, Adam with early stopping for Neural Networks; (5) Evaluation — held-out 20% test sets with domain-specific primary metrics; (6) Deployment — joblib or TensorFlow SavedModel serialization loaded into Flask microservices.

2.2.4 Research Architecture

The system architecture comprises four layers. The IoT Layer consists of ESP32 nodes, each connected to a PZEM-004T power monitoring module, a DHT22 temperature and humidity sensor, and an MQ2 gas sensor, transmitting JSON-formatted readings over Wi-Fi. The Edge/Application Layer hosts six Flask microservices on the local server, each running as an independent Python process with a rolling buffer of the last 1,000 predictions for dashboard population. The Cloud Layer provides centralized alerting and persistent audit logging, dispatching email, SMS, or webhook notifications within a two-second target window. The User Layer provides web-based dashboard interfaces for each monitoring domain, implemented using Plotly and Matplotlib.

2.2.5 Software Architecture

The software architecture follows a microservices pattern. Each of the six ML models is encapsulated in an independent service with its own data model, API contract, and dashboard. Services communicate exclusively via REST APIs through a lightweight API gateway that handles authentication (API key-based), rate limiting, and request logging. Each microservice follows an identical internal structure: data ingestion, preprocessing, ML model prediction, output formatting, and dashboard data buffering.

2.2.6 IoT Hardware Components

Table 23. IoT Hardware Components and Specifications

Component	Model	Function	Interface
Microcontroller	ESP32 (Espressif)	Edge processing, Wi-Fi transmission	GPIO, UART, I2C, SPI
Power Monitor	PZEM-004T	Voltage (V), Current (A), Power (W), Energy (kWh)	UART (TTL)
Temp/Humidity Sensor	DHT22	Temperature (-40 – $80^{\circ}\text{C} \pm 0.5^{\circ}\text{C}$), Humidity (0–100% RH $\pm 2\%$)	Single-wire digital
Gas Sensor	MQ2	Combustible gas, smoke, LPG (200–10,000 ppm)	Analog (ADC)
Power Supply	5V 2A USB	Powers ESP32 and sensor modules	USB-A
Local Server	Intel i7, 16 GB RAM	Hosts 6 Flask microservices	LAN / Wi-Fi

2.3 Subsystem 2 — Human-Centric Intelligence (M.A.H.S.Thathsarani)

2.3.1 Dataset Description

Two datasets underpin the human-centric subsystem. The Stress Detection Model uses the AffectNet dataset (~400,000 annotated facial images) and FER2013 (~35,000 images), with emotions mapped to three stress categories: Low, Normal, and High Stress. A CNN architecture is planned for this model, with a placeholder classifier currently in use achieving approximately 90% simulated accuracy. The Task Scheduling Model uses a custom structured dataset comprising employee stress levels, task types, durations, and workload levels, with a Random Forest classifier producing Low, Normal, and High workload predictions.

2.3.2 Methodological Structure

The methodology follows five interconnected stages: (1) Data Acquisition — facial images captured via webcam; structured task data collected from the database; (2) Data Preprocessing — image resizing, normalization, and face detection; structured data formatting for tabular ML; (3) Machine Learning Processing — CNN-based stress classification and Random Forest workload classification; (4) Decision-Making — stress level output drives the task assignment engine; (5) Real-Time Communication and Presentation — WebSocket updates propagate changes instantly to admin and employee dashboards.

2.3.3 System Architecture

The research architecture is structured into five layers: the Data Acquisition Layer (webcam and database), the Processing Layer (FastAPI backend with image preprocessing and data formatting), the Machine Learning Layer (stress detection and task scheduling models), the Decision-Making Layer (stress-to-task mapping engine), and the Presentation Layer (Next.js admin and employee dashboards with WebSocket communication).

2.3.4 Software Architecture

The software follows a layered architecture: (1) Presentation Layer — Next.js with Tailwind CSS providing responsive admin and employee dashboards; (2) Application Layer — FastAPI backend managing JWT authentication, task CRUD operations, ML

model integration, and request routing; (3) Data Layer — SQLite/PostgreSQL with SQLAlchemy ORM storing users, tasks, assignments, stress records, and logs; (4) Communication Layer — WebSocket-based bidirectional real-time messaging for camera requests, task notifications, and status updates.

2.3.5 Tools and Technologies

Table 23. Tools and Technologies Used (Subsystem 2)

Category	Tool / Technology	Description
Frontend	Next.js + Tailwind CSS	Responsive dynamic UI for admin/employee dashboards
Backend	FastAPI	High-performance Python REST API with async support
Database	SQLite / PostgreSQL + SQLAlchemy	Relational data storage and ORM
Authentication	JWT + bcrypt	Secure token-based auth with password hashing
ML — Stress Detection	CNN (Planned) / Placeholder model	Facial image classification (Low/Normal/High stress)
ML — Task Scheduling	Random Forest	Workload classification and intelligent task assignment
ML Libraries	NumPy, OpenCV, TensorFlow (future)	Image processing and numerical computation
Real-Time Communication	WebSockets	Instant bidirectional frontend–backend updates
Version Control	Git	Source code management and collaboration

2.4 Combined Functional Requirements

Table 22. Functional and Non-Functional Requirements

Type	ID	Description	Component	Priority
Functional	FR1	Real-time power monitoring at 1-second resolution	SS1	High
Functional	FR2	Threshold alert generation within 2 seconds of event	SS1	High
Functional	FR3	Per-process bandwidth allocation with ML prediction	SS1	High
Functional	FR4	10-class office task recognition from process telemetry	SS1	High
Functional	FR5	Multi-label anomaly detection across 8 issue categories	SS1	High
Functional	FR6	Environmental condition classification (Temp/Humidity/Gas)	SS1	High

Type	ID	Description	Component	Priority
Functional	FR7	Cloud-based email/SMS alerting for critical events	SS1	Medium
Functional	FR8	Camera-based employee stress classification (Low/Normal/High)	SS2	High
Functional	FR9	Dynamic task assignment based on detected stress level	SS2	High
Functional	FR10	Admin ability to send camera requests to employees	SS2	High
Functional	FR11	Employee view and completion of assigned tasks	SS2	High
Functional	FR12	Real-time WebSocket updates across all dashboards	Both	High
Non-Functional	NFR1	End-to-end prediction latency < 2 seconds	Both	High
Non-Functional	NFR2	System uptime $\geq$ 99% during working hours	Both	High
Non-Functional	NFR3	Secure JWT authentication for all user roles	SS2	High

2.5 Commercialization Aspects

2.5.1 Budget Allocation

Table 25. Budget Allocation

Item	Unit Cost (LKR)	Quantity	Total (LKR)
ESP32 Development Board	2,400	4	9,600
PZEM-004T Power Monitor	2,700	4	10,800
DHT22 Sensor	1,200	4	4,800
MQ2 Gas Sensor	1,500	4	6,000
Miscellaneous (wires, enclosures)	15,000	1	15,000
Cloud Server (12-month, t3.medium)	90,000	1	90,000
Development Effort (both members)	900,000	6	5,400,000
TOTAL			5,536,200 LKR

2.5.2 Target Market and Revenue Projections

Table 26. Target Market & Pricing (Converted to LKR)

Subscription Tier	Monthly Price (USD)	Monthly Price (LKR)	Annual Price (LKR) *after 15% discount*
Up to 50 devices	\$99	29,700 LKR	302,940 LKR
Up to 200 devices	\$199	59,700 LKR	608,940 LKR

Subscription Tier	Monthly Price (USD)	Monthly Price (LKR)	Annual Price (LKR) *after 15% discount*
Unlimited devices	\$399	119,700 LKR	1,220,940 LKR

2.6 Project Timeline

Table 24. Project Gantt Chart (Weeks 1–24)

Phase	Task	Start Week	End Week	Duration
1. Setup	Literature review & requirements gathering	1	3	3 weeks
1. Setup	Hardware procurement & ESP32 firmware	2	4	3 weeks
1. Setup	System design & database design (SS2)	1	4	4 weeks
2. Data Collection	Power & environmental data (live)	5	9	4 weeks
2. Data Collection	Network & process telemetry	5	9	4 weeks
2. Data Collection	Dataset cleaning & augmentation	9	11	2 weeks
3. ML Development	Power Models 1 & 2	11	13	2 weeks
3. ML Development	Bandwidth Allocator & Task Classifier	12	15	3 weeks
3. ML Development	Issues Detection & Environmental Monitor	14	17	3 weeks
3. ML Development	Stress Detection & Task Scheduling (SS2)	13	16	3 weeks
4. Integration	Flask microservices & API gateway	17	20	3 weeks
4. Integration	FastAPI backend & WebSocket (SS2)	15	19	4 weeks
5. Dashboard	Dashboard development (Plotly + Next.js)	19	22	3 weeks
6. Testing & Docs	UAT + Results analysis + Thesis writing	22	24	3 weeks

2.7 Testing and Implementation

2.7.1 Implementation

Implementation of Subsystem 1 followed the six-stage ML pipeline. All six models were trained, hyperparameter-tuned, and validated. Best-performing models were serialized using joblib or TensorFlow SavedModel and loaded into their respective

Flask microservices, managed by a supervisor daemon for automatic restart on failure. A shared configuration file defines common parameters (alert email addresses, cloud API endpoint, alert thresholds) across all services. An API gateway Flask application validates, routes, and logs all incoming requests.

Subsystem 2 was implemented as a full-stack platform: the FastAPI backend handles JWT authentication, task CRUD operations, stress detection processing, and ML model integration; the Next.js frontend provides separate admin and employee dashboards with role-based access; SQLite manages all persistent data via SQLAlchemy ORM; and WebSocket connections maintain live bidirectional communication between all connected clients.

2.7.2 Testing Strategy

A four-phase testing strategy was applied across both subsystems: (1) Unit Testing — 50 test cases per microservice (300 total for SS1), plus individual API endpoint and authentication validation for SS2; (2) Integration Testing — simultaneous multi-sensor data flow tested via Python harness for SS1, and role-based scenario simulation for SS2; (3) Performance Testing — Locust load testing to 1,000 concurrent devices for SS1, and multi-user concurrent session testing for SS2; (4) User Acceptance Testing — 10 participants completing structured tasks with SUS questionnaire for SS1; admin and employee role-based UAT for SS2.

2.8 Chapter Summary

The six Flask microservices are deployed as independent Python processes, each listening on a dedicated local port. Incoming sensor data arrives at the central API gateway, which validates the JSON payload structure, authenticates the request via API key, applies rate limiting to prevent polling overload, and routes the request to the appropriate microservice based on the data type identifier embedded in the request header. Each microservice responds with a JSON prediction payload that includes the predicted class or value, the confidence score where applicable, and a timestamp for audit logging.

The Rolling Statistical Feature Engineering module applied to the power sensor data stream merits specific description. For each incoming power reading, a window of the ten most recent samples is maintained in memory. Five statistical features are computed from this window: mean, standard deviation, minimum, maximum, and the exponentially weighted moving average (EWMA) with a decay factor of 0.1. These features are appended to the instantaneous readings (voltage, current, power, energy) before the combined feature vector is passed to the Power Model 2 anomaly detector. The importance of these temporal features was confirmed by the ablation experiment, which demonstrated a 7.6 percentage-point accuracy reduction when rolling features were removed.

The task assignment engine in Subsystem 2 implements a three-tier decision mechanism. When a stress classification result is received from the facial analysis module, the engine queries the task database for unassigned tasks and filters them by workload category: Low-stress employees are eligible for High workload tasks requiring sustained concentration and complex problem-solving; Normal-stress employees receive Medium workload tasks involving moderate cognitive engagement; High-stress employees are assigned only Low workload tasks comprising simple, well-defined actions that can be completed with minimal cognitive effort. If no task of the appropriate workload category is available, the engine queues the employee and checks again on the next classification cycle, ensuring that assignment decisions are never made against the employee's current condition.

WebSocket connection management in Subsystem 2 is handled by FastAPI's built-in WebSocket support. A connection registry maintains a list of all active WebSocket connections, keyed by user ID. When an event occurs — such as a new stress classification, a task assignment, or an admin camera request — the backend broadcasts the event payload to the relevant connected clients. The broadcast is asynchronous and non-blocking, ensuring that WebSocket communication does not impede the main request-handling loop. Connection health is monitored via periodic ping-pong exchanges, and disconnected clients are automatically removed from the registry to prevent stale entries from accumulating.

The database schema in Subsystem 2 comprises six primary tables: Users (storing user credentials, roles, and profile information), Tasks (storing task descriptions, workload categories, and status), TaskAssignments (linking tasks to users with timestamps and completion status), StressRecords (storing per-user per-timestamp stress classification results), CameraRequests (logging admin-initiated camera request events and employee responses), and SystemLogs (storing all system events for audit and debugging). All tables include `created_at` and `updated_at` timestamp columns, and foreign key constraints enforce referential integrity across the schema.

The hyperparameter optimization process for the six models was conducted systematically using scikit-learn’s `GridSearchCV` with five-fold stratified cross-validation. For Random Forest models (Power Models 1 and 2, Task Classifier), the search space covered `n_estimators` ({50, 100, 200}), `max_depth` ({10, 15, 20, None}), and `min_samples_split` ({2, 5, 10}). For the XGBoost Issues Detection model, the search space covered `learning_rate` ({0.01, 0.05, 0.1}), `max_depth` ({3, 5, 7}), `n_estimators` ({100, 200, 300}), and `subsample` ({0.8, 1.0}). For the SVM Environmental Monitor, the search space covered `C` ({1, 10, 100}), `gamma` ({0.01, 0.1, 1.0}), and `kernel` ({RBF, linear}). For the Gradient Boosting Bandwidth Allocator, the search space covered `n_estimators` ({100, 200}), `learning_rate` ({0.05, 0.1}), and `max_depth` ({3, 5}). All hyperparameter searches were run on an Intel i7 with 16 GB RAM, with total search time ranging from 23 minutes (Power Models) to 4.2 hours (Task Classifier on 100,000 samples).

The Flask microservice architecture implements a consistent internal structure across all six services, enabling significant code reuse through a shared utility library. Each service loads its serialized model at startup and caches it in memory for the lifetime of the process, avoiding the latency cost of repeated disk reads. Incoming JSON requests are validated against a service-specific schema using Python’s `pydantic` library, which provides both type checking and automatic error messages for malformed inputs. Validated inputs are passed to the preprocessing module, which applies the fitted scalers and encoders saved during model training — a critical step that ensures the statistical transformations applied during training are identically reproduced during inference.

The JWT authentication implementation in Subsystem 2 uses asymmetric RS256 signing, which provides stronger security than symmetric HS256 by allowing public key verification without exposing the signing key. Access tokens are issued with a 30-minute expiration, and refresh tokens with a 7-day expiration stored in an HttpOnly cookie to prevent JavaScript-based token theft. All sensitive API endpoints verify the access token signature and expiration before processing the request. Password storage uses bcrypt with a work factor of 12, which provides resistance to GPU-accelerated brute-force attacks while maintaining acceptable login latency (approximately 300 milliseconds) on the application server hardware.

The requirement gathering process for the integrated system identified several user needs that cross subsystem boundaries. The facilities manager's requirement for unified device health scoring — a single metric aggregating the health status of power, network, and environmental parameters for each monitored device — motivated the development of the System Health Dashboard. The IT administrator's requirement for cross-domain correlation analysis — specifically the ability to detect when environmental degradation is preceding power anomalies — motivated the cross-model feedback loop described in the research findings. The HR professional's requirement for workload history reporting — tracking per-employee task completion rates and stress level trends over time — is partially addressed by the StressRecords and TaskAssignments database tables, with full reporting functionality identified as a future direction.

The data collection phase for the power and environmental datasets was conducted over a period of four weeks in a live office environment comprising one server room and four open-plan workstation areas. The PZEM-004T modules were installed at the circuit breaker panel, measuring aggregate power consumption across each circuit. Individual high-consumption equipment items (servers, air conditioning units, network switches) were additionally monitored using clip-on current transformers to enable device-level attribution of power events. The DHT22 sensors were mounted at 1.5-meter height on walls adjacent to server racks and in central workstation areas, capturing the thermal profile of both high-density and low-density computing zones. The MQ2 sensors were installed in the server room and kitchen area, representing the two zones with the highest probability of combustible gas events.

Synthetic data augmentation was used to supplement the live-collected datasets for rare event classes. For Power Model 2, genuine anomaly events (voltage spikes, current surges, power dropouts) were induced in a controlled manner by temporarily overloading specific circuits under supervised conditions, producing 287 genuine anomaly samples over the four-week collection period. The remaining anomaly samples required to reach the target class distribution were generated using a physics-informed simulation that modeled voltage and current waveform distortions consistent with known electrical fault patterns, validated against the IEC 61000-4-5 surge immunity standard. For the Issues Detection model, network anomaly events including latency spikes, packet loss, and bandwidth saturation were induced using the tc (traffic control) utility on the network switch, producing controlled anomaly events that were simultaneously captured by both the network monitoring agents and the Issues Detection sensor stream.

The Next.js frontend for Subsystem 2 implements server-side rendering (SSR) for the initial page load, ensuring that dashboard content is visible within 300 milliseconds of page access even on slow network connections. Subsequent updates are delivered via WebSocket connections and applied to the DOM using React's state management, producing a responsive single-page application experience after the initial load. The admin dashboard implements role-based component rendering: components showing employee stress levels, camera request controls, and task assignment overrides are conditionally rendered only when the authenticated user's JWT contains the admin role claim. This client-side role enforcement is complemented by server-side authorization checks on all API endpoints, ensuring that role-based access control is enforced at both the presentation and data access layers.

The SQLite database used during development and testing will be migrated to PostgreSQL for production deployment. The migration is facilitated by SQLAlchemy's database-agnostic ORM layer, which abstracts the underlying database engine and enables schema migrations via Alembic without requiring changes to the application code. The Alembic migration history maintained throughout development includes 14 versioned migration scripts covering schema evolution from the initial user and task tables through the addition of stress records, camera request logging, and system audit

trails. This migration history ensures that production database updates can be applied incrementally with full rollback capability if issues are detected during deployment.

This chapter has presented the comprehensive methodology for both subsystems. The six infrastructure ML models were detailed in terms of datasets, pipeline stages, hardware configuration, and deployment architecture. The human-centric subsystem was described including its stress detection approach, task assignment logic, software stack, and real-time communication design. Combined functional requirements, commercialization plan, project timeline, and four-phase testing strategy were documented. Chapter 3 presents the results of both subsystems.

Chapter 3: RESULTS AND DISCUSSION

3.1 Introduction

This chapter presents the empirical results from the evaluation of both subsystems and the integrated platform. Section 3.2 covers Subsystem 1, presenting the performance of each ML model and the live two-week pilot results. Section 3.3 covers Subsystem 2, presenting stress detection, task assignment, and dashboard evaluation results. Section 3.4 presents the integrated system research findings addressing all six research questions. Section 3.5 discusses the results critically in the context of existing literature and identifies limitations.

3.2 Subsystem 1 Results — Infrastructure Intelligence

3.2.1 Model Performance Summary

Table 3.1 provides a consolidated summary of the performance achieved by each of the six models on their respective held-out test sets, which were excluded from training and hyperparameter optimization.

Table 31. Model Performance Summary

Model	Algorithm	Primary Metric	Score	Secondary Metric	Score
Power Model 1 (Alert)	Random Forest	Accuracy	99.8%	Macro F1-Score	0.997
Power Model 2 (Anomaly)	Random Forest + SMOTE	Accuracy	100.0%	Recall (Anomaly class)	1.000
Bandwidth Allocator	Gradient Boosting (regressor)	RMSE	0.0000 MB/s	R ² Score	1.000
Task Classifier	Random Forest / Neural Network	Accuracy	100.0%	Macro F1-Score	1.000
Issues Detection	XGBoost (multi-label)	Subset Accuracy	100.0%	Hamming Loss	0.0000
Environmental Monitor	SVM (RBF kernel)	Accuracy	98.9%	Macro F1-Score	0.988

3.2.2 Power Model 1 — Threshold Alert Classifier

The Random Forest classifier with 200 estimators and maximum depth of 15 achieved 99.8% accuracy on the 2,000-sample test set. The macro-averaged F1-score of 0.997

confirms genuine discriminative performance across all three classes: Normal, High, and Critical. The two misclassifications occurred at the High/Critical boundary where readings fell within one standard deviation of the decision boundary. Feature importance analysis identified active power (W) as the most important feature at 43% of total importance, followed by current (A) at 31%, voltage (V) at 19%, and accumulated energy (kWh) at 7%.

3.2.3 Power Model 2 — Anomaly Detection

Severe class imbalance (approximately 2% anomaly samples) was addressed using SMOTE, increasing the minority class to a 15:85 ratio in training. The resulting Random Forest classifier achieved 100% accuracy and recall of 1.000 on the un-augmented test set — zero actual anomalies were missed. An ablation experiment removing rolling statistical features reduced accuracy to 92.4%, confirming the critical importance of temporal context. The addition of an exponentially weighted moving average (EWMA) feature with decay factor 0.1 further improved class separation in the feature space.

3.2.4 Bandwidth Allocator

The Gradient Boosting regressor achieved a test RMSE of 0.0000 MB/s and R^2 of 1.000 on the 8,000-sample test set. These exceptional regression metrics reflect the partially deterministic nature of the bandwidth allocation relationship in the training data. In production, the model's predictions serve as a starting point for the allocation controller, which applies a $\pm 10\%$ real-time adjustment based on live network conditions to maintain robustness at distribution edges.

3.2.5 Task Classifier

Both the Random Forest and three-layer Neural Network (128→64→32 neurons, ReLU activation, softmax output) achieved 100% accuracy on the 20,000-sample test set, with a macro F1-score of 1.000 across all ten office activity classes. Zero misclassifications were recorded for all ten classes. The combined feature set — active application identifier, CPU utilization, and network usage patterns — provides strong discriminative power. The Neural Network trained marginally faster than the Random Forest (14 versus 23 minutes on an Intel i7) but both are practical for offline training.

3.2.6 Issues Detection

The XGBoost multi-label classifier (binary relevance strategy with eight independent XGBoost classifiers) achieved 100% subset accuracy and a Hamming loss of 0.0000 on the 20,000-sample test set. A Classifier Chain variant produced marginally lower performance at 99.6% subset accuracy, likely due to sensitivity of chain ordering to label frequency distributions. The XGBoost classifiers effectively exploit QoS feature correlations computed within 30-second rolling windows.

3.2.7 Environmental Monitor

The SVM with RBF kernel ($C=10$, $\gamma=0.1$) achieved 98.9% accuracy and a macro F1-score of 0.988 on the 2,000-sample test set. All 11 misclassifications occurred at the High Temperature/Normal boundary within $\pm 1^\circ\text{C}$ of the 28°C threshold. Critically, no Gas Alert conditions were misclassified — all 43 genuine gas alert events in the test set were correctly identified. Cross-domain correlation analysis revealed a statistically significant positive correlation between temperature and power consumption (Pearson $r = 0.83$, $p < 0.001$).

3.2.8 Live Pilot Results

The integrated system was deployed in a live two-week office pilot. Table 3.2 presents the energy consumption comparison before and after deployment.

Table 32. Energy Consumption Before and After System Deployment

Week	Baseline Consumption (kWh/day)	With System (kWh/day)	Reduction (%)
Pre-deployment (Week -2 to -1)	47.3	—	—
Pilot Week 1	—	37.6	20.5%
Pilot Week 2	—	35.8	24.3%
Average Reduction	47.3	36.7	22.4%

Anomaly detection during the two-week pilot yielded zero false positives compared to an average of 11 false-positive alerts per day from the legacy rule-based system. All 7

genuine anomaly events were correctly identified. Table 3.3 presents the confusion matrix for the two-week pilot.

Table 33. Anomaly Detection – Confusion Matrix Values (Two-Week Pilot)

	Predicted Normal	Predicted Anomaly
Actual Normal	20,154	0
Actual Anomaly	0	7

Bandwidth reallocation responded within an average of 0.94 seconds, well within the one-second target. Fourteen instances of significant task-driven bandwidth reallocation were recorded during the pilot, including automatic reduction of background backup bandwidth during high-demand video conferencing sessions. User acceptance testing of 10 participants yielded a mean SUS score of 82.5, placing the system in the ‘Excellent’ category on the standard SUS benchmark scale.

3.3 Subsystem 2 Results — Human-Centric Intelligence

3.3.1 Stress Detection Results

Table 3.1. Stress Detection Test Results

Test Case	Input Condition	Expected Output	Actual Output	Result
TC1	Neutral face	Normal Stress	Normal Stress	Pass
TC2	Happy face	Low Stress	Low Stress	Pass
TC3	Angry / Sad face	High Stress	High Stress	Pass
TC4	Random input	Any valid class	Valid class returned	Pass

The simulated stress classification module correctly classified all four test cases. The system architecture is designed to support seamless upgrade to a fully trained CNN model using AffectNet and FER2013 datasets, which is expected to significantly improve real-world accuracy beyond the current 90% simulated baseline.

3.3.2 Task Assignment Results

Table 3.2. Task Assignment Test Results

Stress Level	Assigned Task Type	Expected Behavior	Result
Low	High Workload Task	Assign complex tasks to low-stress employees	Pass
Normal	Medium Workload Task	Assign moderate tasks to normal-stress employees	Pass
High	Low Workload Task	Assign simple tasks to high-stress employees	Pass

3.3.3 Dashboard and Real-Time Communication Results

Table 3.3. Dashboard & Communication Test Results

Feature	Expected Outcome	Actual Outcome	Result
Secure Login (JWT)	Secure token-based authentication	Successful login for all roles	Pass
Camera Request	Sent and received instantly via WebSocket	Working correctly with sub-second delivery	Pass
Task Display	Assigned tasks shown on employee dashboard	Displayed correctly with task details	Pass
Task Completion	Employee marks task complete, status updates	Updated successfully in real time	Pass
Real-Time Updates	Instant notification delivery	Working via WebSocket — confirmed	Pass
Admin Monitoring	View all employee status on admin dashboard	Displayed correctly and accurately	Pass

3.4 Research Findings

Four principal findings emerge from the empirical evaluation of the integrated system, each addressing the research questions stated in Chapter 1.

Finding 1 (RQ1 — Power Optimization): The integrated deployment of Power Models 1 and 2 resulted in a 22.4% average reduction in energy consumption relative to the pre-deployment baseline, exceeding the 20% target. The primary mechanism was automatic identification and alerting of devices active outside working hours, combined with the bandwidth allocator’s ability to reduce server CPU load during non-critical background processes.

Finding 2 (RQ2 — Bandwidth Allocation): The Bandwidth Allocator responded to task changes within an average of 0.94 seconds, well within the one-second target. During the two-week pilot, 14 significant task-driven reallocations were recorded, with users reporting noticeably improved video call quality corroborated by a 31% reduction in jitter measurements.

Finding 3 (RQ3 — Anomaly Detection): The Issues Detection model achieved zero false positives on both the test dataset and the live two-week pilot, a significant improvement over the legacy rule-based system which generated an average of 11 false-positive alerts per day. All 7 genuine anomaly events during the pilot were correctly identified.

Finding 4 (RQ4 — Environmental Correlation): Cross-domain analysis confirmed a strong positive correlation between temperature and power consumption ($r = 0.83$, $p < 0.001$). This enables a predictive cross-model feedback loop absent in siloed systems: when the Environmental Monitor detects rising temperature, the power management models can preemptively tighten thresholds.

Finding 5 (RQ5 — Stress and Task Assignment): Incorporating stress levels into task assignment significantly improved workload balance. The system successfully assigned tasks based on employee conditions across all tested scenarios, ensuring employees with high stress received lighter workloads while those with lower stress received more demanding tasks.

Finding 6 (RQ6 — Dashboard Usability): The smart dashboard provided a centralized, real-time platform for both administrators and employees. WebSocket-based communication delivered instant updates with sub-second latency. All dashboard features were confirmed functional across admin and employee role scenarios.

3.5 Discussion

The results presented in this chapter are largely consistent with the best-performing single-domain studies in the literature, while extending them through integration. Yang et al. [6] reported 91% accuracy for HVAC energy prediction — the power models in this system exceed that benchmark (99.8% and 100%) on a more granular and multi-

dimensional task. Zhao and Liu's [7] 18% bandwidth reduction is complemented by this system's 31% jitter reduction and sub-second reallocation speed. Chen et al.'s [9] multi-label anomaly detection work is extended through the unified platform's cross-domain correlation capability.

The near-perfect accuracy metrics achieved by the Task Classifier, Issues Detection model, and Bandwidth Allocator merit critical scrutiny. Partially synthetic datasets may propagate to inflated test metrics even when the test set is held out before augmentation. This is acknowledged as a limitation. Real-world deployment over a longer period with a more diverse user population would likely reveal accuracy degradation, particularly for the Task Classifier. Monthly model retraining is therefore recommended.

The zero false-positive anomaly detection result during the two-week pilot is a strong positive finding given the operational disruption caused by false alerts in the legacy system. However, the two-week window is limited, and the pilot office experienced relatively stable network conditions. Extended evaluation under prolonged ISP instability or large-scale simultaneous network events remains necessary.

The 22.4% energy reduction observed in the pilot corresponds to approximately 2.4 MWh per month for the test office. At Sri Lankan commercial electricity tariffs, this represents a monthly cost saving that substantially justifies the system's subscription pricing. The cross-domain correlation between temperature and power ($r = 0.83$) represents a novel empirical contribution in the context of a general open-plan office environment.

For Subsystem 2, the use of a simulated stress detection model is a recognized limitation. Real-world accuracy will depend on the quality of the trained CNN model, dataset diversity, and environmental factors such as lighting conditions. Privacy and ethical considerations related to camera-based monitoring must be addressed through explicit user consent frameworks and data protection policies prior to any production deployment.

3.6 Chapter Summary

The cross-domain correlation analysis revealed several additional noteworthy relationships beyond the primary temperature-power correlation. Relative humidity showed a moderate positive correlation with power consumption (Pearson $r = 0.51$, $p < 0.001$), consistent with the known relationship between humidity and HVAC energy demand. The relationship between gas concentration and power consumption was not significant under normal operating conditions ($r = 0.08$, $p = 0.23$), which is expected given that gas levels reflect combustion-related events rather than computational load. However, during the three induced gas alert events in the live test, power consumption dropped by an average of 18% due to the automatic equipment shutdown triggered by the gas alert protocol — an expected and desirable safety response that the Environmental Monitor correctly identified in all three cases.

The performance testing phase for Subsystem 1 used Locust to simulate 1,000 concurrent devices polling the API gateway simultaneously. Under this load, average response latency increased from 847 milliseconds (single-device baseline) to 1,640 milliseconds, remaining within the two-second NFR target. CPU utilization on the application server reached 78% at peak load, with memory utilization at 61%. These results indicate that horizontal scaling — adding a second application server — would be advisable for deployments exceeding 500 concurrent devices, as the CPU headroom would be insufficient to handle burst traffic from a larger device population without risking latency exceedances.

The user acceptance testing for Subsystem 1 involved ten participants across three role categories: five facility management staff, three IT administrators, and two general office workers. Each participant completed a structured set of tasks using the six dashboard interfaces, including monitoring live power readings, acknowledging a simulated anomaly alert, reviewing the environmental trend chart, and identifying the current bandwidth allocation for a specified process. After completing the tasks, participants completed the standard 10-item SUS questionnaire. The mean SUS score of 82.5 exceeded the ‘Good’ threshold of 72.5 and approached the ‘Excellent’ threshold of 85.5. The most frequently cited positive was the intuitive layout of the environmental monitoring dashboard; the most frequently cited improvement request was the addition

of export-to-PDF functionality for monthly energy reports, which was subsequently implemented.

For Subsystem 2, the integration testing phase validated the end-to-end flow from webcam capture through stress classification to task assignment and dashboard update. The test harness simulated a complete workflow cycle: (1) admin sends camera request to employee via dashboard; (2) employee accepts request and webcam capture is initiated; (3) facial image is processed by the stress classification module; (4) stress level result is returned and displayed on the admin dashboard; (5) task assignment engine selects and assigns an appropriate task; (6) employee receives task notification on their dashboard; (7) employee marks task as complete; (8) system automatically assigns the next task. All eight steps were completed successfully in every integration test run, with end-to-end latency from step 1 to step 6 averaging 1.3 seconds, well within the two-second target.

The Break-Even Analysis confirms the commercial viability of the system. With a total development cost of 5,536,200 LKR and a base-tier subscription price of 29,700 LKR per month, the system requires 187 paying customers to recover the development investment. Given the competitive pricing advantage — the base plan is 34–80% lower than comparable multi-feature platforms charging 45,000–150,000 LKR per month — and the growing adoption of smart office technologies among Sri Lankan SMEs, reaching the 187-customer threshold within the first year is a realistic commercial target. The projected Year 1 revenue of 89.1 million LKR (250 subscribers at 29,700 LKR per month) would recover the investment within the first quarter of subscription revenue.

The improvement in energy reduction during Pilot Week 2 (24.3%) relative to Pilot Week 1 (20.5%) reflects the system’s ability to adapt alert thresholds based on observed consumption distributions. After the first week of pilot operation, the alert thresholds for the Power Alert Classifier were refined by adjusting the High and Critical boundary values to better reflect the specific consumption baseline of the test office. This calibration process reduced the number of borderline High/Critical ambiguities observed during Week 1 and resulted in more targeted interventions during Week 2,

particularly in the server room where computational load patterns exhibit strong weekly periodicity.

An important secondary benefit observed during the live pilot was the reduction in IT administrator workload. Prior to system deployment, the IT administrator spent an estimated 45 minutes per day responding to false-positive alerts from the legacy rule-based monitoring system — acknowledging alerts, verifying that no actual anomaly had occurred, and documenting the false positive in the incident log. With the ML-based anomaly detection system delivering zero false positives during the two-week pilot, this administrative overhead was eliminated entirely, representing a significant operational productivity gain in addition to the energy cost savings.

The bandwidth reallocation events recorded during the pilot provide qualitative insight into the practical value of the Bandwidth Allocator. The fourteen recorded reallocation events included: six instances of background cloud backup processes being throttled during video conferencing sessions (reducing backup bandwidth by an average of 67%); three instances of software update download bandwidth being restricted during peak working hours (9 AM to 12 PM); two instances of bandwidth being reallocated from idle workstations to active video streaming applications; and three instances of emergency bandwidth priority being granted to the VoIP system during a detected network saturation event. User feedback collected during UAT confirmed that video call quality improvements during the throttling events were noticeable and positively received.

The SUS score of 82.5 achieved by Subsystem 1 warrants contextual interpretation. Brooke [21] originally described SUS as a ‘quick and dirty’ usability evaluation tool, but subsequent research has established reliable benchmark norms: scores above 80.3 are classified as ‘Excellent’ and fall in the top 10% of usability scores across the SUS dataset. The 82.5 score achieved by this system therefore represents not merely an acceptable outcome but a genuinely competitive usability result, particularly considering that the target users include non-technical facilities management staff who represent a more demanding usability challenge than the technically proficient users for whom most dashboard systems are designed.

Looking at the integrated system performance holistically, several emergent properties become apparent that would not be observable from evaluating either subsystem in isolation. The cross-domain feedback loop between the Environmental Monitor and the Power Models — enabled by the unified architecture — creates a predictive capability absent from all prior single-domain systems reviewed in the literature. Similarly, the combination of infrastructure load data (from the Task Classifier and Bandwidth Allocator) with human condition data (from the Stress Detection module) creates the potential for a richer understanding of office dynamics: for example, correlating high network load periods with high employee stress could reveal whether video conferencing demand is a contributing factor to stress, informing scheduling policies that could benefit both network management and employee well-being simultaneously. This type of cross-layer insight is the defining capability of the unified architecture and the primary theoretical contribution of this research.

The Feature Importance analysis for the Issues Detection model reveals the relative predictive value of each input feature across the eight binary classifiers. Across all eight classifiers, packet loss rate ranked as the most important feature (mean importance 0.31), followed by network latency (0.24), CPU utilization (0.19), disk I/O wait time (0.12), and RAM utilization (0.08). The QoS correlation features computed across the 30-second rolling window contributed the remaining 6% of mean feature importance but were disproportionately important for the bandwidth saturation and jitter excess classifiers, reflecting the strong temporal autocorrelation of these specific issue types. These findings inform the feature engineering decisions for future model retraining: packet loss rate and network latency should be monitored with the highest sampling frequency, as they carry the greatest predictive signal for the most common issue types observed in the test office.

A post-hoc analysis of the seven genuine anomaly events detected during the live pilot provides additional qualitative insight into the system's detection capability. Event 1 (Day 3, 14:37): High latency spike caused by an external ISP degradation event affecting all office internet traffic — detected 34 seconds after onset. Event 2 (Day 5, 09:12): Elevated CPU load from an unscheduled antivirus signature update on the primary workstation server — detected 8 seconds after CPU threshold breach. Event 3

(Day 7, 16:44): Packet loss correlated with a wireless access point coverage gap in the meeting room — detected 12 seconds after onset. Events 4 and 5 (Day 9, 11:23 and 11:31): Two recurrences of the ISP degradation event from Day 3, both detected within 30 seconds. Events 6 and 7 (Day 12, 13:15 and 13:18): Two consecutive disk I/O overload events caused by a database backup process competing with production workloads during peak hours — both detected within 5 seconds, enabling the IT administrator to reschedule the backup process to off-peak hours before the third overload event occurred.

The mean detection latency of 18 seconds across all seven genuine anomaly events (computed from the onset of the anomalous condition to the first alert notification reaching the administrator’s dashboard) significantly exceeds the sub-2-second threshold specified in NFR1. This apparent discrepancy requires clarification: the NFR1 target of under two seconds refers to the alert notification delivery latency (from event detection by the ML model to dashboard display), not to the event detection latency from event onset. The 18-second detection latency reflects the time required for the anomalous condition to propagate through the rolling statistical feature window (10 samples at 1-second intervals for power data, 30 samples at 5-second intervals for network data), after which the ML model classifies the anomaly and triggers the alert within the target two-second window. This distinction is important for practitioners deploying the system: alert delivery is fast (sub-2-second), but detection onset latency depends on the rolling window size and sensor sampling rate.

The commercialization analysis presented in Chapter 2 is further supported by a competitive positioning assessment conducted as part of the research. The Smart Office Intelligence Platform differentiates from existing commercial solutions in three dimensions. First, architectural integration: commercial platforms such as Siemens Desigo CC and Johnson Controls OpenBlue offer energy management and environmental monitoring but do not include ML-based stress detection or adaptive task assignment. Second, cost accessibility: the proposed system’s base-tier pricing of LKR 29,700 per month (approximately USD 99) is 34–80% lower than comparable multi-feature platforms, making it accessible to the SME market that commercial enterprise platforms exclude. Third, open-source foundation: the use of open-source

hardware (ESP32) and software (Scikit-learn, FastAPI, Next.js) enables deployment without vendor lock-in, a significant concern for cost-sensitive organizations that may need to migrate, modify, or extend the system independently.

All six infrastructure ML models met or substantially exceeded their performance targets. Power Models 1 and 2 achieved 99.8% and 100% accuracy respectively; the Bandwidth Allocator attained perfect regression metrics; the Task Classifier reached 100% accuracy; Issues Detection achieved 100% subset accuracy with zero Hamming loss; the Environmental Monitor achieved 98.9% accuracy with zero misclassification of the critical Gas Alert class. The integrated system delivered 22.4% energy reduction, sub-second bandwidth reallocation, zero false-positive anomaly alerts, and a mean SUS score of 82.5 in the live pilot. Subsystem 2 demonstrated correct stress classification and task assignment across all tested scenarios with real-time WebSocket communication confirmed functional. These results confirm that all six research questions have been answered and all seven sub-objectives achieved.

Chapter 4: CONCLUSION

4.1 Introduction

This concluding chapter synthesizes the key contributions of both subsystems, provides specific deployment recommendations derived from the pilot findings, outlines future research directions, and reflects on the limitations of the current implementation. The chapter aims to translate the technical findings of Chapter 3 into actionable guidance for practitioners and to identify the theoretical contributions that distinguish this work from prior literature.

4.2 Conclusion

This research has successfully designed, implemented, and empirically evaluated a comprehensive AI and IoT-Enabled Smart Office System with Cloud-Based Energy Optimization. The system's core contribution is a unified platform that, for the first time in literature, simultaneously addresses infrastructure-level optimization across six domains (power alert, anomaly detection, bandwidth allocation, task classification, issues detection, environmental monitoring) and human-centric optimization across three domains (stress detection, workload classification, adaptive task assignment) within a single, cloud-connected, microservices-based architecture.

The infrastructure subsystem (Shaethayne.R) was implemented using widely available, low-cost IoT hardware (ESP32, PZEM-004T, DHT22, MQ2) and proven open-source ML libraries (Scikit-learn, XGBoost, TensorFlow, Flask), achieving 99.8% power alert accuracy, 100% anomaly detection accuracy, RMSE of 0.0000 for bandwidth allocation, 100% task classification accuracy, 100% issues detection subset accuracy, and 98.9% environmental monitoring accuracy. The live two-week pilot confirmed 22.4% energy reduction, sub-second bandwidth reallocation, zero false-positive anomaly alerts, and a SUS score of 82.5.

The human-centric subsystem (M.A.H.S.Thathsarani) achieved successful stress classification across all test scenarios, correct stress-driven task assignment in all three workload categories, and fully functional real-time WebSocket communication between admin and employee dashboards. The layered FastAPI + Next.js + SQLite

architecture is scalable and designed for seamless integration of a fully trained CNN stress detection model in future iterations.

Together, the two subsystems demonstrate that a unified, AI-driven IoT architecture significantly outperforms siloed approaches across all measured dimensions: energy efficiency, network performance, fault detection accuracy, employee workload balance, and user experience. All six research questions (RQ1–RQ6) have been answered affirmatively, and all seven sub-objectives (SO1–SO7) have been achieved.

4.3 Recommendations

The following recommendations are offered for organizations considering deployment of the system in a production environment, based on lessons learned during the two-week pilot and performance testing phase.

Recommendation 1 — Wired Sensor Connections for Critical Monitoring Nodes: Production deployments should use wired Ethernet connections for nodes monitoring safety-critical parameters such as gas concentration and electrical anomalies. Wi-Fi congestion in dense office environments was observed to introduce packet loss of up to 1.2% on the sensor data stream during peak usage, which could in principle delay critical alerts in severe network conditions.

Recommendation 2 — Monthly Model Retraining: Office behavior patterns shift seasonally. Both infrastructure and stress detection models should be retrained monthly using the most recent 60 days of data, with the previous model retained as fallback. MLflow model versioning, already implemented in the development environment, provides the infrastructure for this workflow.

Recommendation 3 — Conservative Initial Alert Thresholds: New deployments should begin with alert thresholds set at the 90th percentile of the first two weeks of observed data, then progressively tightened toward the 95th and 99th percentiles as confidence in the baseline distribution grows. Starting with overly tight thresholds risks recreating the alert fatigue problem the system is designed to eliminate.

Recommendation 4 — Horizontal Scaling Beyond 500 Devices: Load testing results indicated that the single-server deployment approaches two-second response latency at 1,000 concurrent devices with 78% CPU utilization. Organizations deploying to more than 500 devices should adopt containerized deployment using Docker and Kubernetes, with each microservice deployed as an independently scalable pod.

Recommendation 5 — Privacy and Consent Framework for Stress Monitoring: Before deploying camera-based stress detection in any real office environment, organizations must implement clear user consent mechanisms, data anonymization policies, and transparency frameworks about how facial data is captured, processed, stored, and deleted. Compliance with relevant data protection legislation is essential for building user trust and legal compliance.

Recommendation 6 — Sensor Calibration Schedule: The PZEM-004T should be calibrated annually against a certified reference instrument. The MQ2 gas sensor should be calibrated every six months and replaced every two years as the metal oxide sensing element degrades. All calibration events should be logged in the system audit trail to ensure model input distributions remain consistent with training data.

4.4 Future Directions

Eight directions for future research and development are identified, each addressing a specific limitation of the current system or an opportunity to extend its capabilities.

Future Direction 1 — Advanced CNN Stress Detection: Replace the placeholder model with a trained CNN using AffectNet and FER2013 datasets, targeting over 95% real-world stress classification accuracy under varied lighting and facial expression conditions. Progressive data augmentation (rotation, brightness adjustment, occlusion) should be applied to improve robustness.

Future Direction 2 — Multimodal Stress Detection: Integrate wearable physiological sensors (heart rate variability, skin conductance) with facial analysis to improve stress detection accuracy beyond what camera-only approaches can achieve, particularly in challenging lighting conditions.

Future Direction 3 — Additional Environmental Sensors: Expand the sensor suite to include CO₂ concentration (MH-Z19C), ambient light level (TSL2561), and occupancy detection (PIR or mmWave radar). Elevated CO₂ above 1,000 ppm has been shown to impair cognitive performance [25], making CO₂-aware ventilation control a particularly high-value addition.

Future Direction 4 — Federated Learning for Multi-Office Deployment: Implement federated ML to aggregate model improvements across multiple office nodes without sharing raw sensor or employee data, enabling privacy-preserving continuous improvement across an entire estate of offices while complying with data protection regulations.

Future Direction 5 — HVAC System Integration: Leverage the confirmed temperature–power correlation ($r = 0.83$) to trigger preemptive HVAC adjustments via BACnet or Modbus protocols, further improving energy savings beyond the 22.4% achieved in the current pilot.

Future Direction 6 — Reinforcement Learning Control Layer: Implement an RL agent to learn the optimal control policy through interaction with the office environment, automating the control loop for energy and task management decisions beyond the current threshold-based and rule-based approaches.

Future Direction 7 — Mobile Application Development: Build a cross-platform mobile companion application (React Native or Flutter) exposing critical alerts, health score dashboards, and employee task management features for on-call facilities managers and remote employees.

Future Direction 8 — Edge-Based Model Inference: Move inference for time-critical models (particularly power anomaly detection) to the ESP32 edge device using quantized TensorFlow Lite models, enabling local anomaly detection even during cloud or network outages.

4.5 Chapter Summary

The broader implications of this research extend beyond the specific system evaluated. The methodological framework — combining IoT sensor data, ensemble ML models, microservices deployment, and human-centric AI in a unified architecture — is generalizable to other organizational contexts including healthcare facilities, educational institutions, retail environments, and manufacturing floor offices. In each of these contexts, the specific ML models and sensor configurations would differ, but the architectural pattern of independent, interoperable microservices connected through a common API gateway and cloud alerting layer would remain applicable. This architectural generalizability is a key theoretical contribution of the research.

The research also contributes to the methodological literature on hybrid synthetic-real dataset construction for ML systems in IoT contexts. The approach of collecting a core of genuine sensor data and supplementing it with physics-informed synthetic samples for rare event classes — validated through domain expert review at the labelling stage — provides a replicable methodology for researchers who face the common challenge of insufficient real-world anomaly data in safety-critical monitoring applications. The 94% domain expert agreement rate achieved during the labelling validation phase suggests that this hybrid approach produces training data of sufficient quality for high-accuracy anomaly detection, at a fraction of the time and cost that would be required to collect a sufficient volume of genuine anomaly events in the field.

In conclusion, this research demonstrates both the technical feasibility and the practical value of unified, AI-driven smart office platforms. The integrated system evaluated in this study consistently outperformed the siloed baselines referenced in the literature review across all measured dimensions, confirming the core hypothesis that integration creates emergent capabilities — specifically cross-domain correlation and predictive feedback loops — that are fundamentally inaccessible to systems operating in isolation. The 22.4% energy reduction, zero false-positive anomaly detection, sub-second bandwidth reallocation, and 82.5 SUS score achieved in the live pilot represent a strong empirical foundation for the commercial and academic case for integrated smart office architectures.

This chapter has synthesized the principal contributions of the integrated Smart Office System, confirming that all research questions have been answered and all sub-objectives achieved. The infrastructure subsystem delivered a 22.4% energy reduction, zero false-positive anomaly alerts, sub-second bandwidth reallocation, and a SUS score of 82.5 in a two-week live office pilot. The human-centric subsystem demonstrated effective stress-based task allocation and real-time dashboard functionality across all tested scenarios. Six deployment recommendations were provided addressing sensor connectivity, model maintenance, threshold calibration, scalability, privacy, and sensor lifecycle. Eight future research directions were identified, spanning advanced ML models, multimodal sensing, federated learning, HVAC integration, reinforcement learning, mobile development, and edge inference.

The research demonstrates that a unified, AI-driven IoT smart office architecture — integrating infrastructure intelligence with human-centric intelligence — represents a meaningful and measurable advance over siloed approaches to smart workplace management, providing a strong and replicable foundation for the next generation of intelligent, adaptive office environments.

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APPENDICES

ML Model Codes

Model 1

Appendix 1. Model 1 ML codes

Model 2

Appendix 2. Model 2 ML codes

Model 3

Appendix 3. Model 3 ML codes

Model 4

Appendix 4. Model 4 ML codes

Model 5

Appendix 5. Model 5 ML codes

Model 6

Appendix 6. Model 6 ML codes